



The bi-cultural option for global talent management: The Japanese/Brazilian *Nikkeijin* example



Masayuki Furusawa^{a,*}, Chris Brewster^b

^a Faculty of Business Administration, Osaka University of Commerce, Mikuriyasakaemachi, Higashiosaka, Osaka 577-8505, Japan

^b Henley Business School, University of Reading, Whiteknights, Reading, Berkshire RG6 6UD, UK

ARTICLE INFO

Article history:

Available online 12 March 2014

Keywords:

International HRM (IHRM)
Global talent management
Expatriation
Localization
Boundary-spanners
Bi-culturals
Nikkeijin
Dekassegui
Japanese MNCs
Brazil

ABSTRACT

This paper reports on an important subgroup of international boundary-spanners – immigrants and second or third generation migrants from the MNC's home country living in the subsidiary host country. We take as our example the *Nikkeijin* (Japanese immigrants and their descendants) in Brazil. Such bi-cultural people are a largely unexplored source of boundary-spanning internationally competent talent for multinational enterprises. Using two different surveys, we find that this group is recognized as a source of talent by Japanese MNCs, but that their HRM practices are not appropriate to attract and use them in their global talent management programmes.

© 2014 Elsevier Inc. All rights reserved.

1. Introduction

Studies of international human resource management developed from an early concentration on expatriates assigned from parent-company headquarters to foreign subsidiaries (PCNs), to a wider analysis of the use of host country nationals (HCNs) and third-country nationals (TCNs) (Harzing, 1999, 2001; Scullion & Collings, 2006; Toh & DeNisi, 2005) and then more recently to self-initiated expatriates (see the recent books on the topic (Andresen, Al Ariss, Walther, & Wolff, 2012; Vaiman & Haslberger, 2012)). The latest area of interest has been in the management of international staff who fit none of these categories: the increasing number of the international labour force who, from birth or experience, are individuals who are capable in more than one culture. We explore this topic through an examination of a particular group of bi-culturals: Japanese Brazilians.

The reasons for the use of expatriates were originally described as three-fold (Edström & Galbraith, 1977): To compensate for a

lack of skills amongst the foreign workforce, as a means of control or developing the organization by transferring knowledge and policies, or as a means of developing individual expatriates. This categorization has stood the test of time and is still used today, though augmented with other purposes such as developing global mindsets (Arora, Jaju, Kefalas, & Perenich, 2004; Osland, Bird, Mendenhall, & Osland, 2006). While expatriation makes a positive contribution to organizational objectives, there are also disadvantages: The chief amongst these is the cost – usually several times the cost of the appointment of the same individual on their home site and many times more than the cost of employing locals. They may also have very little understanding of the foreign business context, may have problems with the local language and with settling into and performing effectively in the local environment. Whilst the importance of pre-departure training programmes to improve the cross-cultural adjustment of expatriates and their family member has been emphasized in the IHRM literature for years, researchers are unable to prove its effectiveness (Ehnert & Brewster, 2008; Puck, Kittler, & Wright, 2008; Tarique & Caligiuri, 2009). Moreover, the successful reintegration of former expatriates is one of the troublesome challenges in the global assignment cycle (Brewster, Sparrow, Vernon, & Houldsworth, 2011; Mendenhall, Dunbar, & Oddou, 1987; Tung, 1988).

* Corresponding author.

E-mail addresses: furusawa@daishodai.ac.jp (M. Furusawa), c.j.brewster@henley.reading.ac.uk (C. Brewster).

By contrast, localization is expected to improve the image of the business in the host location and enable better access to locally-embedded knowledge (Fryxell, Butler, & Choi, 2004; Tian, Harvey, & Slocum, 2014). Internally, it will avoid the costs of expatriation and contribute to the acquisition and retention of capable human resources (Evans, Pucik, & Barsoux, 2002). Localization also involves potential problems (Collings, Scullion, & Morley, 2007), such as a possible lack of professional or managerial ability in the host subsidiary or environment, the more restricted mindset of local employees and difficulties in communication with headquarters (HQ). Consequently, companies are often required to invest a lot of money and time for the development of their local employees, which could offset their advantages in costs. In addition, in some emerging society markets, MNCs have been suffering from a high turn-over rate of local managers (Khatri, Fern, & Budhwar, 2001; Selmer, 2004; Tian et al., 2014; Tymon, Stumpf, & Doh, 2010).

The recent growing literature on talent management, in which this journal has been a leader, both generally (Al Ariss, Cascio, & Paauwe, 2014) and specifically in global talent management (Cerdin & Brewster, 2014; Shen & Hall, 2009; Stahl et al., 2012; Tarique & Schuler, 2010), aims to develop a line of analysis independent of but covering both expatriation and localization. Whilst the precise outlines and meanings of 'talent management' may be unclear or disputed (Al Ariss et al., 2014; Lewis & Heckman, 2006) effective talent management is a major contributor to the success or failure of businesses (Joyce & Slocum, 2012) hence a deeper understanding of the way this plays out through expatriation and localization is of considerable interest.

The academic interest in talent management has arisen partly because, as in other areas of HRM (Jackson, Schuler, & Jiang, 2014), multinational corporations (MNCs), aided by consultancies, have adopted the terminology as they have begun to search for new options. A key to these options globally is people who can function as boundary-spanners between the local context and HQ by having dual cultural schemas and bi-lingual skills. They have extensive experience in more than one country, or they are children or descendants of people who have moved from one country to another. These people are, depending on the different definitions used in the literature, "bi-culturalists" (Brannen & Thomas, 2010; Friedman & Liu, 2009; Lücke & Roth, 2008), "multicultural employees" (Fitzsimmons, Miska, & Stahl, 2011), "third culture persons" (Hayashi, 1985, 1994), "cultural mediators" (Bochner, 1981; Oakamoto & Teo, 2012) or "cosmopolitans" (Hannerz, 1990; Levy, Beechler, Taylor, & Boyacigiller, 2007), perhaps even cosmopolitan patriots (Appiah, 1998). We use the common expression 'bi-culturalists' here.

This article reports on one of the first empirical research analyses of this relatively small but valuable source of internationally knowledgeable individuals. It takes the following form. First, we discuss briefly some relevant aspects of the literature on international human resource management. Then we focus on our example case: the Japanese/Brazilians, or the *Nikkeijin*, in Brazil. We discuss the importance of this group; and the value that they may bring to Japanese MNCs. Then we explain our methodology and present our findings. Finally we discuss the implications of the findings for our understanding of international human resource management and for practitioners.

2. Literature review

2.1. Bi-culturalists and their value

Although some commentators (Friedman, 2007; Tomlinson, 1999) have suggested that national differences are gradually being absorbed into one world culture, we believe that it is necessary to

accept that national cultures and institutions remain of major significance. Therefore, bi-cultural potential employees become increasingly interesting players to world-ranging organizations. Specific examples of such bi-culturalists would include the 'Latino' population in the USA, the extensive 'Chinese-Canadian' population and the Muslims brought up in Europe, all of whom have a different culture than that of either their parents or of their home country (Vertovec & Rogers, 1998). Although bi-culturalism has been studied in the psychology literature (Benet-Martinez & Haritatos, 2005), we could find very few empirical studies of this group in the international business literature.

Key to the various definitions of bi-culturalists, or any of the related terms, is that they can function as boundary-spanners and mediators in the international context by switching relatively easily between two or more cultures (LaFromboise, Coleman, & Gerton, 1993). Whilst some argue that bi-culturalists have to be 'born' (Brannen & Thomas, 2010), Lücke and Roth (2008) take a culture-cognitive perspective to argue that individuals can develop bi-culturalism through social experiences in later life. Bi-culturalists are individuals who have internalised more than one cultural schema (Brannen & Thomas, 2010; Hong, 2010; Hong, Morris, Chiu, & Benet-Martinez, 2000). They have available to them more than one cultural frame which can be accessed in response to different situations. This enables them to play the role of a cultural broker, building bridges between organizational units in culturally different contexts, or acting as catalysts for creativity and innovation by combining cultural schemas (Brannen & Thomas, 2010; Hong, 2010).

According to Hayashi (1985, 1994), third culture persons are people who can act as a bridge between two cultures (first culture and second culture, or parent country and host country). They are expected to function as cross-cultural interface administrators. Hayashi's criteria for being a third culture person are proficiency in the two languages, understanding of the two cultures and trust from at least one group of members of the two countries (Hayashi, 1985). Whilst it is clearly true that mono-cultural people may achieve a certain level of explicit cultural knowledge through education, training, and experience, they will not gain the tacit knowledge that bi-cultural people have developed naturally (Hong, 2010). Hayashi (1994) suggests that such bicultural persons will help nurture mutual understanding in, particularly, the foreign subsidiaries of MNCs, by 'translating' the information, knowledge, and values exchanged across the two cultures. They thus become important human resources for such organizations (Butler, Zander, Mockaitis, & Sutton, 2012; Friedman & Liu, 2009).

Bi-cultural competence is regarded as a set of dynamic interacting dimensions consisting of knowledge, cross-cultural abilities (behavioural adaptability and cross-cultural communication skills) linked by cultural frame switching and cultural metacognition (Hong, 2010). Multicultural employees understand and apply the rules of their cultures and are usually fluent in the respective languages, which help them operate within and between their cultures. Fitzsimmons et al. (2011) indicated that multicultural employees have a potential to contribute to international business activities in five areas: multicultural teams, intercultural negotiations, international assignment, ethics and leadership, and international mergers and acquisitions.

Bi-culture persons can be seen as valuable talents for MNCs, particularly for Japanese MNCs, given the uniquely high-context communication styles (Hall, 1976; Hayashi, 1994). Since the earliest studies of Japanese MNCs, it has been pointed out that because of the homogeneous nature of Japanese society (Fernandez & Barr, 1993; Yoshino, 1976). Japanese MNCs have specific problems when they internationalise. In particular, it has been argued that the slow progress of localization of top management positions – a more explicit target for Japanese MNCs than for MNCs

from other countries – can be seen as their “Achilles heel” (Bartlett & Yoshihira, 1988). Japanese MNCs generally offer limited global career opportunities for host country nationals (Furusawa, 2008). Furusawa called the problem “the second glass ceiling” in Japanese MNCs.

The existence of cultural mediators in a Japanese-affiliated company in Australia was pointed out in an explanatory study (Oakamoto & Teo, 2012). This study includes both non-Japanese host country staff and locally-hired Japanese staff. Both of those groups hold a high level of familiarity with each other's culture as well as previous working and living experiences in the two countries. The study reveals that those cultural mediators are assisting communication between Japanese expatriates and host country nationals and alleviating the role stress experienced by the two parties.

Another strand of the literature has noted the important role of one particular group of bi-culturalists – returnees. These are people who have moved to and settled in another country, or whose parents or grand-parents have, but who have come ‘home’ from there, gaining employment in a country that is, to them, neither home nor host (Tung & Lazarova, 2006). Such individuals may provide ‘homegrown’ solutions to the challenges of international work (Brannen & Thomas, 2010) and may begin to approach Appiah's (1998) idea of a cosmopolitan patriot.

This paper reports on one specific group of these boundary-spanners. For organizations in and from Japan, a country with a largely homogeneous culture and acknowledged problems in expatriation (Bartlett & Yoshihira, 1988; Furusawa, 2008), the *Nikkeijin*,¹ Japanese immigrants and their descendants, have potential as bi-culturalists and international human resources able to make a key contribution to a Japanese MNC's talent pool. Arguably, the *Nikkeijin* can be part of the solution to the ethnocentricity problem facing Japanese MNCs. The problem is not unique to Japanese MNCs (Mayrhofer & Brewster, 1996) and the *Nikkeijin* are only one of the many groups of bi-culturalists across the world. Given the range of options available to internationally operating organizations, it is obvious that effective global talent management will involve being aware of the full range of possibilities and the development of a strategic and appropriate mix of options. This research identifies a possibility beyond those normally addressed in the literature to date: Hence it opens up additional opportunities for research and for practitioners.

2.2. The *Nikkeijin* in Brazil

We focus on Japanese immigrants and their descendants in Brazil. It has been suggested that talent management needs to be embedded in its particular social context (Al Ariss et al., 2014; Iles, Chuai, & Preece, 2010). Brazil is a unique and appropriate focus because it has the largest *Nikkeijin* population in the world. Japanese immigration to Brazil started in 1908. There existed both push and pull factors behind this unusual matching between the Far Eastern nation and the South American one. Japan was confronting the prospect of rising unemployment and organized labour unrest in the economic downturn after the Russo-Japanese War of 1904–05. At the same time, Japanese migrants were being closed out of their preferred destinations in North America. On the other hand, as Brazil was enjoying an extraordinary boom in coffee production. The demand for new sources of labour there was especially urgent. This followed the Italian government ban from 1902, responding to the complaints of unpaid migrant workers on São Paulo state's coffee plantations, which prohibited further contract labour being sent from there to Brazil (Lone, 2001, pp. 20–25). Since then about a quarter of a million Japanese have

emigrated to Brazil and it is now estimated that the total number of Japanese Brazilians (the *Nikkeijin*) is about 1.5 million (Ninomiya, 2006; Suzuki, 2008, 2010; Ueda, 2010).

In Brazil, the *Nikkeijin* have climbed the social ladder and generally have a high educational background and a good reputation as being reliable, diligent, and punctual. This is in spite that some find them liable to make too many excuses, or lack a global perspective or leadership (Japan Overseas Enterprises Association, 2008; Tanaka, 1998). They are seen as a ‘model minority’ (Kajita, Tanno, & Higuchi, 2005) by many.

For Japanese MNCs, the topic is particularly relevant at the present moment because, with recent economic development there lifting Brazil into the middle income countries, Japanese MNCs are paying considerable attention to Brazil as an attractive emerging market. Foreign direct investment from Japan to Brazil jumped from \$950 million U.S. in 2005 to \$8.3 billion in 2011.²

The *Nikkeijin* in Brazil may be parent country nationals (PCNs with Japanese passports) or host country nationals (HCNs with Brazilian passports) or both (dual nationality). Using the latest IHRM terminology, the first-generation of the *Nikkeijin* will be self-initiated expatriates or migrants. Compared to the majority of PCNs, they have a direct link to and a strong feeling for Brazil and a unique awareness of cultural differences. Compared to the majority of HCNs, they have a better understanding of the Japanese culture, they feel an affinity to Japan and its cultural background and many of them are fluent in Japanese. In short, they are potentially valuable cultural mediators with their tacit understanding, able to act as a bridge between Japanese and Brazilian cultures. In fact, historically, Japanese-affiliated companies in Brazil have actively hired *Nikkeijin* as their employees. According to a recent survey (Japan Overseas Enterprises Association, 2008), the average ratio of *Nikkeijin* employees was 23% whilst the *Nikkeijin* occupy less than 1% of the total population of Brazil. We therefore hypothesize:

Hypothesis 1. Japanese-affiliated companies in Brazil evaluate the *Nikkeijin* highly as human resources.

On the other hand, the Japanese community in Brazil, perhaps inevitably, becomes more Brazilian and suffers from declining Japanese proficiency and loss of its specific identity as the *Nikkeijin* become increasingly acculturated into the majority Brazilian society. There has been an increase of inter-marriage with native Brazilians. Moreover, a substantial reverse migration of Japanese Brazilians to Japan started in 1990 in the midst of economic turmoil in Brazil and severe blue-collar labour shortage in Japan. This phenomenon is called “*Dekassegui*”.³ About 200,000 Japanese Brazilians with their *Nikeijin* or non-*Nikkeijin* spouses live in Japan now and they move back and forth between Japan and Brazil. In that sense, the *Dekassegui* phenomenon may offer the possibility of restoring the ‘Japanese-ness’ of the *Nikkeijin* to enable the Japanese-affiliates to maintain the employment of these culture-bridging or boundary-spanning employees. Accordingly, we argue that:

Hypothesis 2. Living and working in Japan makes the *Dekassegui* persons more valuable as boundary-spanners for Japanese MNCs, than the people who stayed in Brazil.

Previous research has noted some criticism from the Japanese community of the human resource management policies of Japanese affiliates in Brazil. Some of this criticism reflects the

¹ *Nikkeijin* literally means ‘Japanese-affiliated persons’.

² See the statistics by JETRO (<http://www.jetro.go.jp/world/statistics>).

³ *Dekassegui* is a Brazilian (Portuguese language) adaptation of *Dekasegi* (Japanese). *Dekasegi* originally means working away from home temporarily and in Japan typically applied to the rural farmers who used to go to Tokyo or Osaka to find work during the winter.

widespread critiques of Japanese MNCs with their slow progress of localization (Bartlett & Yoshihira, 1988; Harzing, 2001) and limited global career opportunities for host country nationals (Furusawa, 2008). Other concerns are peculiar to Brazil and include the low evaluation of the *Nikkeijin*'s Japanese language proficiency (Miyao, 2002) and an arrogant attitude by Japanese expatriates towards their *Nikkeijin* employees (Japan Overseas Enterprises Association, 2008; Ninomiya, 2008; Tanaka, 1998). This leads us to propose:

Hypothesis 3. The *Dekassegui* persons have negative images of the Japanese-affiliates in Brazil as their potential employers.

3. Methodology

These hypotheses are tested through two surveys: The first of these was a survey of Japanese-affiliates in Brazil, the second survey was of the *Nikkeijin* (Japanese Brazilians) themselves. The first survey was conducted in Brazil, in São Paulo. The survey target was 180 Japanese affiliated companies that are members of the Japan–Brazil Chamber of Commerce. We selected this sample group as it covers most of the major Japanese subsidiaries. The questionnaire was prepared in Japanese and e-mailed to the Japanese top management in each company. The respondents were asked to identify their company names. Responses were obtained from 65 different corporations (a response rate of 36%). 69% were in manufacturing, 91% of them were Japanese-owned with the other 9% being joint ventures.

The second survey, targeting the *Nikkeijin* living in Japan, was conducted in the Prefectures of Aichi, Gifu, Gunma, Hyogo, Shiga and Toyama. The six prefectures were selected as they have the large Japanese Brazilian communities. The first author joined events or attended meetings sponsored by the local Japanese Brazilian organizations and asked the participants (the *Dekassegui*) there to answer the questionnaire anonymously. Although almost all the participants were willing to fill out the survey, those without any memories of living in Brazil, such as the persons who came to Japan in their childhood, were excluded from the sample. The questionnaire was prepared in both Portuguese and Japanese and the respondents could choose either version. There were 157 responses, of whom less than 1% were 1st generation *Nikkeijin*, 51% were 2nd generation, 46% were 3rd generation and 2% were 4th generation (see Table 1 for Demographic detail on the respondents). Most were of purely Japanese extraction; about half hold a permanent visa and a fifth have their own homes in Japan. Most of them were 'repeaters', having entered Japan on more than one occasion and most had been in Japan for more than ten years in total. A quarter of them had a University degree but whilst most had worked in white-collar jobs in Brazil (as company executives or white-collar employees of private companies, or as government officials or teachers), in Japan most were working in manual jobs or as non-permanent workers, experiencing a significant drop in status. Half hope to go back to Brazil within 5 years.

We asked the Japanese-affiliates about their evaluation on their *Nikkeijin* employees to test Hypothesis 1. Concretely, 15-item

questions, which concerned both the good and bad reputation of the *Nikkeijin*, were presented based on the previous literature (Furusawa, 2013; Japan–Brazil Chamber of Commerce, 2004; Japan Institute of Labour, 1988; Japan Overseas Enterprises Association, 2008; Tanaka, 1998). Five-point Likert scales were used for those questions (Appendix A). Then factor analysis was utilized to group the items. Four factors with eigenvalues greater than 1.00 were identified: *traditional virtues of the Nikkeijin*, *negative attitudinal aspects of the Nikkeijin*, *negative ability-related aspects of the Nikkeijin*, and *mediating role of the Nikkeijin with trade unions or the Japanese community* (Appendix B). Additionally, *t*-tests were performed to measure the differences between the manufacturing and non-manufacturing sectors.

Hypothesis 2 was tested by asking the *Dekassegui* about their self-evaluation of the three facets of Japanese language ability, namely speaking, reading, and writing. We also developed a set of seven items on the lifestyles of the *Dekassegui* based on the descriptions in preceding studies (Miyao, 2002; Nakasumi, 1998). The questions used five-point Likert scales and *t*-tests were applied to assess the changes of their Japanese proficiency and lifestyles after living and working in Japan.

As for Hypothesis 3, the *Dekassegui* were asked about their images of HRM practices of Japanese affiliates in Brazil in comparison with those of western MNCs. This proposition was operationalised through 20-item questions based on statements in previous research referring to both the positive and negative aspects of HRM of Japanese MNCs (Bartlett & Yoshihira, 1988; Dore, 1973; Fujino, 1995; Furusawa, 2008; White & Trevor, 1985; Yasumuro & Kansai Productivity Center, 1997). All the questions were designed to be answered using five-point Likert scales (Appendix C). The items were factor analyzed and seven factors with eigenvalues greater than 1 were extracted: *problems with globally-integrated HRM systems*, *collaborative labour-management relationship*, *rigid and stiff corporate climate*, *seniority-based HRM systems*, *insufficient formalization of management controls*, *egalitarian management styles*, and *slow progress of localization of management executive positions* (Appendix D). We also conducted *t*-tests to check differences between generations and parentage.

4. Findings

Hypothesis 1 was largely supported. The Japanese-affiliates in Brazil do indeed recognize the *Nikkeijin* as valuable human resources. The mean of Factor 1 labelled *traditional virtues of the Nikkeijin* reaches 3.72, which suggests that the Japanese-affiliated companies in Brazil believe their *Nikkeijin* employees are more diligent, more honest, more team-oriented and more punctual than native Brazilians (Table 2). Their Japanese language skills are also appreciated and the *Nikkeijin* in their own organizations are rated as being more loyal and having higher retention rates than equivalent local Brazilians. By contrast, the means of Factors 2 and 3 (*negative attitudinal aspects of the Nikkeijin* and *negative ability-related aspects of the Nikkeijin*) are below 3.00. These results indicate that the Japanese-affiliates do not accept some of the previously noted (Japan Overseas Enterprises Association, 2008;

Table 1
Demographic results of the *Dekassegui* survey (%).

Purely Japanese extraction	76	Mixed extraction	24
No permanent visa	52	Permanent visa	48
Don't own home in Japan	76	Own home in Japan	24
First visit to Japan	27	More than one visit to Japan	73
Less than 10 years in Japan	26	More than 10 years in Japan	74
High school diploma	58	Degree	23
White collar job in Brazil	76	Manual job in Brazil	24
White collar job in Japan	28	Manual job in Japan	72
Want to go back to Brazil in next 5 years	52	Do not want to go back to Brazil in next 5 years	48

Table 2Evaluation on their *Nikkeijin* employees: survey of the Japanese affiliates in Brazil.

	Total	Mfg.	Non-mfg.	t-Value
(Factor 1) Traditional virtues of the <i>Nikkeijin</i>	3.72	3.72	3.73	−0.077
(Factor 2) Negative attitudinal aspects of the <i>Nikkeijin</i>	2.72	2.74	2.67	0.368
(Factor 3) Negative ability-related aspects of the <i>Nikkeijin</i>	2.67	2.72	2.55	0.988
(Factor 4) Mediating role of the <i>Nikkeijin</i> with trade unions or the Japanese community	2.49	2.40	3.00	−1.471

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = exactly correct, 4 = correct, if anything, 3 = a toss-up, 2 = incorrect, if anything, 1 = entirely incorrect). Composite variables have been created by adding up the scores of items in each factor.

Tanaka, 1998) negative attributes of the *Nikkeijin* in Brazil, such as being liable to make too many excuses, or as having a lack of global perspective. However, on other potential values, such as the *Nikkeijin*'s links to the local Japanese community or trade unions represented in Factor 4, they are more equivocal. No statistically significant differences were found between the scores of manufacturing and those of non-manufacturing companies.

Hypothesis 2 argued that living and working in Japan makes the *Dekassegui* more valuable as boundary-spanners for Japanese MNCs, than the people who stayed in Brazil. Living and working in Japan as *Dekassegui* unsurprisingly led these individuals with Japanese ancestry to make considerable progress in their Japanese language proficiency (Table 3). Though there was a statistically significant decline in their pre-departure ability of Japanese over the generations and with increased inter-marriage, the *Dekassegui* phenomenon significantly diminishes the decline. The lives and perceptions of the *Nikkeijin* in Japan lie somewhere between those of the local Japanese population and the traditional foreign expatriate. They tend to watch/listen to Japanese language TV and radio programmes and popular songs significantly more than

they did in Brazil. They claim to have a strong consciousness of Japanese traditional habits, such as the New Year celebration or the Buddhist festival of the dead. They support Japan in sports, unless Brazil is the opposition, significantly more than they did in Brazil. Basically, they now live in a more Japanese way than when they were in Brazil, with a statistically significant difference on 6 items out of 8 measures (Table 4). So Hypothesis 2 is supported.

Hypothesis 3, that the *Dekassegui* have negative images of the Japanese-affiliates in Brazil as their potential employers, was supported and appears to have some basis in fact. The data on the human resource management of Japanese-affiliates in Brazil tends to confirm some of the previous research: There is a 'glass ceiling' (Bartlett & Yoshihira, 1988; Harzing, 2001), since 85% of the country manager positions in the Japanese subsidiaries are occupied by Japanese expatriates. Career opportunities for non-Japanese employees (Furusawa, 2008) remain very limited (Table 5). All the mean scores from the individual respondents on such questions are below 2.00. In other words, Japanese MNCs are not seen to utilize their local talent, including the *Nikkeijin* and *Dekassegui*, on a global basis. As for the HRM issues peculiar to the

Table 3Japanese proficiency of the *Dekassegui* persons: survey of the *Dekassegui*.

		Total	2nd generations	3rd generations	t-Value	Japanese extraction	Mixed parentage	t-Value
Speaking	Pre-departure	2.50	2.97	2.03	4.405***	2.82	1.46	7.257***
	Present	4.09	4.21	3.99	1.466	4.14	3.86	1.570
Reading	Pre-departure	2.11	2.35	1.86	2.325*	2.30	1.43	4.596***
	Present	3.47	3.37	3.57	−1.100	3.53	3.23	1.423
Writing	Pre-departure	2.07	2.26	1.86	1.947†	2.26	1.40	4.597***
	Present	3.29	3.19	3.40	−1.166	3.37	3.03	1.650

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = capable without any problems, 4 = just so-so, 3 = a little bit, 2 = can hardly, 1 = not at all).

* $p < 0.05$.

*** $p < 0.001$.

† $p < 0.1$.

Table 4Changes in the lifestyles of the *Dekassegui* persons: survey of the *Dekassegui*.

	Pre-departure lifestyles	Present lifestyles	t-Value
The spoken language at home was/is mainly Japanese	2.55	2.60	−0.522
I often read/read newspapers in Japanese	1.78	2.05	−3.743***
I often watched/watch or listened/listen to TV/radio programmes in Japanese	2.57	3.60	−9.076***
I often listened/listen to Japanese popular songs	3.15	3.39	−2.524*
I often supported/support Japan at international sports games, besides the cases of confronting Brazil	3.12	3.51	−4.491***
The meal at home was/is mainly Japanese	2.78	2.96	−2.233*
I lived/live with a strong consciousness to Japanese traditional habits, such as the New Year celebration or the Buddhist festival of the dead	3.13	3.24	−1.244
I often interacted/interact with Japanese business persons or Japanese corporations	2.31	2.54	−2.356*

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = exactly correct, 4 = correct, if anything, 3 = a toss-up, 2 = incorrect, if anything, 1 = entirely incorrect).

* $p < 0.05$.

*** $p < 0.001$.

Table 5

Global career opportunities for HCNs at Japanese-affiliates in Brazil: survey of the Japanese-affiliates in Brazil.

	Total	Mfg.	Non-mfg.	t-Value
Frequent opportunities exist for our local employees (including the <i>Nikkeijin</i>) to be transferred to the global headquarters in Japan	1.71	1.67	1.80	−0.437
Frequent opportunities exist for our local employees (including the <i>Nikkeijin</i>) to be transferred to South American countries besides Brazil	1.60	1.60	1.60	0.000
Frequent opportunities exist for our local employees (including the <i>Nikkeijin</i>) to be transferred to regions besides Japan or South America	1.54	1.51	1.60	−0.396

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = exactly correct, 4 = correct, if anything, 3 = a toss-up, 2 = incorrect, if anything, 1 = entirely incorrect).

Table 6The images of HRM at Japanese-affiliates in Brazil: survey of the *Dekassegui* persons.

	Total	2nd generations	3rd generations	t-Value	Japanese extraction	Mixed parentage	t-Value
(Factor 1) Problems with globally-integrated HRM systems	3.52	3.55	3.49	0.474	3.51	3.54	−0.216
(Factor 2) Collaborative labour-management relationship	2.87	2.93	2.83	0.758	2.88	2.85	0.222
(Factor 3) Rigid and stiff corporate climate	3.96	3.87	4.07	−1.889 [†]	3.97	3.88	0.714
(Factor 4) Seniority-based HRM systems	3.51	3.51	3.53	−0.130	3.56	3.30	1.302
(Factor 5) Insufficient formalization of management controls	3.13	3.11	3.15	−0.376	3.08	3.28	−1.485
(Factor 6) Egalitarian management styles	3.02	3.04	3.01	0.219	3.00	3.04	−0.237
(Factor 7) Slow progress of localization of management executive positions	3.91	3.84	3.94	−0.661	3.83	4.06	−1.192

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = exactly correct, 4 = correct, if anything, 3 = a toss-up, 2 = incorrect, if anything, 1 = entirely incorrect). Composite variables have been created by adding up the scores of items in each factor.

[†] $p < 0.1$.

Japanese-affiliates in Brazil, their top level meetings are generally held in a language of Japanese and Portuguese or in Japanese only. Japanese is still the dominant language in the subsidiaries of Japanese MNCs. The importance of the Japanese language in the Japanese MNCs does not translate into support for the *Nikkeijin* in relation to their language skills. Only two companies pay their employees any allowances for Japanese language skills. Two thirds of the organizations provide no supportive measures aimed at developing the Japanese proficiency of their employees.

The *Dekassegui* persons appear to be well aware of these problems in the Japanese companies' global talent management strategies. Generally speaking, they would not look for work in the Japanese subsidiaries in Brazil. The mean of Factor 3 called *rigid and stiff corporate climate* reaches 3.96 (Table 6). Above all, two items in the factor, stating that Japanese-affiliates are detailed and strict and that human relations in those companies are complicated and the atmosphere 'stiff', are above 4.00. They also feel that Japanese subsidiaries have a *slow progress of localization of management executive positions* (Factor 7) as well as recognizing the *problems with globally-integrated HRM systems* (Factor 1) such as a lack of global career opportunities, an insufficient global socialization, a difference in working conditions between Japanese expatriates and Brazilian managers, and low wages. Conversely, the means of Factors 2 and 6 are around the midpoint, though given the low alpha on Factor 6 this finding needs to be treated with caution. The results show that some of what have been claimed as amongst the most positive aspects of HRM at Japanese overseas subsidiaries (Dore, 1973; White & Trevor, 1985; Yasumuro & Kansai Productivity Center, 1997) – such as stable employment (less fears of lay-offs), absorbing the ideas of non-management employees, chances of promotion without high academic background – are not seen by this group of respondents in relation to the foreign affiliates of the Japanese MNCs. Since the differences of means of answers by generations or parentage are small, those negative images seem to be persistent amongst Japanese Brazilians. To sum up, Japanese MNCs are not seen as attractive employers by the bi-culturalists that the Japanese employers see as potentially valuable employees.

5. Discussion: The *Nikkeijin* and Japanese MNCs

This research has a number of limitations. The numbers of respondents in each survey were not high, although they are typical for research on expatriates, for example, and there is no reason to believe that they are un-representative. Ideally, we would have liked to survey also *Nikkeijin* who were amongst the minority employed in the Japanese MNCs, however this was not possible. We have single respondents from the companies, but we do not believe that is a major problem either.⁴ Obviously the data is restricted to the *Nikkeijin* in Brazil. This latter limitation may impact the generalisability of the findings by restricting the results to equally well-regarded groups of second and third generation bi-cultural locals, or alternatively by amplifying the problems, a point we develop below. Additionally, although we are confident that our sample is representative, a tighter sample in the survey of the *Dekassegui* would have been better.

Despite these limitations, the research extends both the conventional typology of human resources and talent management in multinational enterprises beyond the PCNs, HCNs or TCNs and the more recent literature exploring alternative strategies (self-initiated expatriates, migrants, and returnees) for achieving an international workforce. The need to bridge the gap between expatriate research and global talent management has been noted (Cerdin & Brewster, 2014; Collings, 2014). The evidence here is that we also need to bridge the gap between global talent management policies and the use of other boundary-spanners who can cross cultural fault lines. If global talent management is about dealing

⁴ There is debate on the use of a single source in organization-level surveys but, as Huselid and Becker (2000) argued, the critical issue is *who* are the most knowledgeable persons about HRM practices. Obtaining more raters may increase reliability but, except in cases where the views of the respondents or areas of their specific knowledge are being studied, additional cases may not increase the accuracy (validity) of the raters' evaluations. In short, it is not simply how many people respond to a survey that is critical but whether the respondents are knowledgeable (cf., Huselid & Becker, 2000; Kepes, Delery, & Gupta 2009; Shaw, Duffy, Johnson, & Lockhart 2005). The top managers we contacted for the survey are the most knowledgeable people about their organizations' overall HRM policies.

with employees anywhere in the world (Shen & Hall, 2009) then bi-cultural employees offer talents that most other employees do not have and that can be used to benefit relevant foreign subsidiaries particularly.

The main findings in our specific example are that the Japanese subsidiaries are aware of the positive reputation of the *Nikkeijin* as employees, particularly of their value as bridges between the Brazilian and Japanese cultures. We also identified the 'qualitative transformation' of the *Nikkeijin* through the *Dekassegui*, such as their increased proficiency in the Japanese languages and increased exposure to Japanese culture. The population of Japanese Brazilians is expanding but this is accompanied by a greater integration of the *Nikkeijin* into majority Brazilian society and a weakening of the 'Japanese-ness' of the community. The *Dekassegui* phenomenon would reverse these trends and help keep the value of the *Nikkeijin* as boundary-spanners for Japanese MNCs.

6. Managerial relevance

The problem for Japanese-affiliated companies in Brazil is that although they recognize the value of these cheap, local bi-culturalists they do not have appropriate HRM policies to attract them. The discrepancy between the Japanese MNCs' view of the value of bi-culturalists and their failure to develop HRM policies to attract them suggests that the Japanese-affiliates in Brazil may have been missing their chances of attracting and retaining the more capable *Nikkeijin*. They also might keep missing high potential *Nikkeijin* for future leaders unless they improve their global talent management systems. To put it differently, their talent management systems to enhance the employee satisfaction might not have been effective enough to reward the value of the *Nikkeijin* though the Japanese-affiliates regard their *Nikkeijin* staff as reliable workers. This is an example of the concept of an unequal 'psychological contract' (Schein, 1978) between the two parties. The *Nikkeijin*'s perception of their worth is not matched by the companies' HRM practices even though they want to recruit them. These HRM practices are reflected in problems, such as a slow progress of localization of top management positions and a lack of global career opportunities, as well as the low evaluation of Japanese language proficiency by Japanese expatriates towards their *Nikkeijin* employees. Previous literature also showed that such HRM practices have caused frustrations or disappointments among the *Nikkeijin* employees of the Japanese-affiliates and have led to a bad reputation of the Japanese subsidiaries in the Japanese community in Brazil (Furusawa, 2013). As a consequence although, historically, Japanese-affiliates have actively hired the *Nikkeijin* as their employees, young capable *Nikkeijin* tend not to seek jobs at those companies and they show more interest in joining western multinationals or local 'excellent' companies (Koike, 2008; Ninomiya, 2008). More than that, our research indicated that another potential employee group of the Japanese-affiliates, the *Dekassegui* persons, recognize these drawbacks in the Japanese MNCs, irrespective of their generations or types of parentage.

The implications of this study extend well beyond the Japanese-Brazilians and Japanese MNCs. The earlier-mentioned communities of Chinese in Canada, Latinos in the USA and Muslims in Europe, for example, are considerably larger than the number of *Nikkeijin* or *Dekassegui* and further research into their use by MNCs would be instructive. In particular, since the Chinese minority in Canada is also seen as 'model' in the sense that its members are keen educators and high achievers, it would be interesting to know whether they are in the same situation as the *Nikkeijin*. We might speculate that the Latinos in the United States of America and the Muslims in Europe, not being seen as 'model minorities', might be even more overlooked by MNCs and find that MNC policies and

actions are even less likely to attract them. More research is needed on these populations too. Whilst there is evidence from other emerging nations such as Vietnam (Kim, Froese, & Cox, 2012) showing that Japanese MNCs may not have the best HRM policies there to attract the people they need. However, it is not obvious that MNCs headquartered in countries other than Japan would necessarily be better at talent managing such bi-culturalists. Again, more research is needed. More broadly, questions being raised about the talent management abilities of many MNCs and their 'development of a diverse talent pool' (Al Ariss et al., 2014), indicate a continuing research gap in this field. Future research should attempt to investigate both bi-culturalists in the employment of relevant MNCs and those who have chosen, or been forced, not to follow that path.

7. Conclusions

This paper raises some important issues for our understanding of this small but potentially valuable group of bi-culturalists and their relationship to MNCs' human resource management policies and practices. It also raises some practical concerns for MNCs and for the individuals concerned. Conceptually, first, the study extends our understanding of the options that internationally operating organizations have when they, as they increasingly seem to be doing, look for cheaper alternatives to standard expatriation contracts that will nonetheless bring them some of the advantages of the international assignees. Those new talent management options can bring the benefits of both expatriates and locals whilst avoiding the drawbacks of the conventional categories. Given the increasing extent of migration and international mobility around the world, the use of bi-culturalists may be a valuable source of expertise and bridge-building. Developing the employment of such people, and managing them when they are employed, is far from problem-free and MNCs may need to focus on this group specifically and to develop effective HRM for such workers. Our evidence is perhaps the first to explore the options companies have with such a population, though they back up evidence in other emerging societies with local mono-cultural workers that MNCs policies may not be appropriate (Kim et al., 2012).

Practically, the survey of the *Dekassegui* persons emphasized that they have attained qualitative transformation through living and working in Japan, which would make them more valuable boundary-spanners. But to take advantage of this, the Japanese MNCs would need to develop better policies to attract them and to improve their image in the community. Attracting the *Nikkeijin* more effectively would require changes in attitude towards them and different policies: a greater commitment to their employment by the global headquarters; accepting and appreciating the value of the *Nikkeijin*; paying allowances for Japanese proficiency, because the Japanese expatriates at the subsidiaries usually come back to Japan in 3–5 years and therefore they tend to lack a long-term perspectives on their global talent management systems.

On their part the *Nikkeijin* could improve their efforts to nurture a global mindset (Evans et al., 2002; Rhinesmith, 1995; Sparrow, Brewster, & Harris, 2004). Being a local expert is a necessary but not sufficient condition to become a management executive in MNCs, where balancing local responsiveness and global integration is required for competitive advantage (Bartlett & Ghoshal, 1998; Doz, Santos, & Williamson, 2001). They are expected to have dual loyalty to the headquarters and the subsidiary. Otherwise, they might end up being merely useful translators in the workplace.

Meanwhile, the Japanese community in Brazil has to show its value as a supply base of boundary-spanners and revitalize itself by involving the *Nikkeijin* with *Dekassegui* experience in its community activities. A 'win-win-win' situation amongst the *Nikkeijin*,

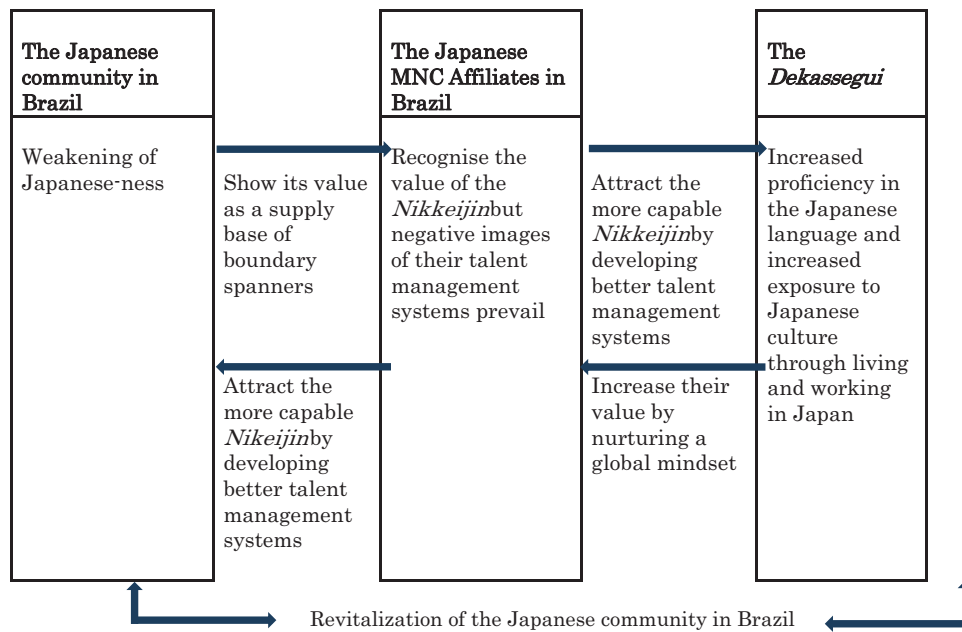


Fig. 1. Desirable 'win-win-win' situation amongst the *Nikkeijin*, Japanese multinationals and the Japanese community in Brazil.

Japanese multinationals and the Japanese community in Brazil should be pursued (Fig. 1).

As Fig. 1 indicates, there are feedback loops between the Japanese community in Brazil proving its value as a source of talent to the Japanese subsidiaries and those subsidiaries becoming more attractive to more bi-cultural employees. The feedback loops include benefits for the Japanese community in Brazil as well as for the companies and individual employees. Effective talent

management by the companies can bring widespread benefits for many.

Acknowledgements

We wish to thank Editor John Slocum and his anonymous reviewers who helped considerably with the positioning and structure of the paper.

Appendix A. Evaluation of their *Nikkeijin* employees: survey of the Japanese affiliates in Brazil

	Total	Mfg.	Non-mfg.
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more diligent than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	3.85	3.91	3.70
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more sincere or honest than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	3.74	3.73	3.75
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more team-oriented than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	3.55	3.58	3.50
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more punctual than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts.	3.63	3.64	3.60
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are superior in Japanese proficiency to non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	4.20	4.09	4.45
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more loyal to the company than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	3.45	3.44	3.45
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employee show higher retention rates than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	3.63	3.62	3.65
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees play an active role as the mediator between management and trade unions	2.52	2.44	3.00
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees play an active role as the pipeline between our company and the organizations in the Japanese community in Brazil	2.43	2.27	2.80
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees make too many excuses by Japanese standards	2.91	2.89	2.95
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees make too many self-assertions by Japanese standards	2.68	2.71	2.60
The global perspectives or skills of our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are insufficient by Japanese standards	2.78	2.87	2.60
The compliance awareness of our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees is insufficient by Japanese standards	2.57	2.62	2.45
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are inferior in leadership to non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	2.65	2.67	2.60
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are inferior in English proficiency to non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	2.57	2.62	2.45

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = exactly correct, 4 = correct, if anything, 3 = a toss-up, 2 = incorrect, if anything, 1 = entirely incorrect).

Appendix B. Factor analysis of evaluation of their *Nikkeijin* employees: survey of the Japanese affiliates in Brazil

	Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more sincere or honest than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.921	−0.124	−0.001	0.066
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more punctual than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.891	0.002	−0.211	0.104
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more loyal to the company than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.860	−0.171	0.051	−0.044
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more diligent than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.849	−0.039	−0.151	0.051
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are more team-oriented than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.788	−0.080	−0.208	0.156
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employee show higher retention rates than non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.547	−0.497	0.195	0.172
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are superior in Japanese proficiency to non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	0.388	−0.043	0.055	0.313

Appendix B (Continued)

	Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees make too many self-assertions by Japanese standards	−0.139	0.864	0.126	0.006
The compliance awareness of our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees is insufficient by Japanese standards	−0.077	0.696	0.456	−0.112
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees make too many excuses by Japanese standards	−0.091	0.691	0.348	0.205
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are inferior in English proficiency to non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	−0.159	0.121	0.760	0.216
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are inferior in leadership to non- <i>Nikkeijin</i> counterparts	−0.155	0.104	0.636	−0.222
The global perspectives or skills of our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees are insufficient by Japanese standards	0.093	0.330	0.582	0.037
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees play an active role as the pipeline between our company and the organizations in the Japanese community in Brazil	−0.016	0.252	−0.075	0.760
Our <i>Nikkeijin</i> employees play an active role as the mediator between management and trade unions	0.228	−0.181	0.062	0.672
Eigenvalue	5.258	2.831	1.594	1.440
Contribution	35.05%	18.87%	10.63%	9.60%
Cronbach's alpha	0.859	0.701	0.713	0.617

Factors with eigenvalue of 1.00 or higher were used. Rotation = varimax.

Appendix C. The images of HRM at Japanese-affiliates in Brazil: survey of the *Dekassegui* persons

	Total	2nd generations	3rd generations	Japanese extraction	Mixed parentage
Compared to the western MNCs, progress of localization of management executive positions is slow	3.91	3.84	3.94	3.83	4.11
Compared to the western MNCs, salary levels of Brazilian managers are low	3.56	3.65	3.47	3.57	3.44
Compared to the western MNCs, HRM systems are seniority-based	3.51	3.51	3.53	3.55	3.31
Compared to the western MNCs, sharing of management philosophy is insufficient	3.24	3.29	3.19	3.22	3.28
Compared to the western MNCs, global career opportunities are small	3.72	3.74	3.68	3.66	3.89
Compared to the western MNCs, training programmes for Brazilian managers are insufficient	3.35	3.36	3.35	3.40	3.28
Compared to the western MNCs, difference in working conditions between (Japanese) expatriates and Brazilian managers is large	3.74	3.73	3.76	3.70	3.89
Compared to the western MNCs, in-company communication is not smooth	3.83	3.81	3.81	3.85	3.73
Compared to the western MNCs, in-company human relations are complicated and atmosphere is stiff	4.02	3.89	4.14	4.06	3.86
Compared to the western MNCs, in-company rules are detailed and strict	4.04	3.93	4.14	3.96	4.22
Compared to the western MNCs, documentation or standardization of work procedures is insufficient	3.03	2.93	3.11	2.95	3.32
Compared to the western MNCs, responsibilities and authorities are not clear	2.83	2.86	2.79	2.81	2.81
Compared to the western MNCs, delegation of authority to Brazilian managers is insufficient	3.54	3.54	3.56	3.48	3.75
Compared to the western MNCs, employees often work overtime or on a day off and working hours are long	3.99	3.85	4.13	3.99	3.95
Compared to the western MNCs, employment is stable (less fears of lay-offs)	2.92	2.90	2.94	2.96	2.89
Compared to the western MNCs, they are good at absorbing the ideas of non-management employees	2.67	2.80	2.55	2.68	2.57
Compared to the western MNCs, difference between white-collar and blue-collar employees is small	3.25	3.28	3.28	3.21	3.32
Compared to the western MNCs, chances of promotion without high academic background are probable	2.75	2.80	2.74	2.78	2.68
Compared to the western MNCs, relations with trade unions are good	2.92	2.95	2.92	2.91	2.89
Compared to the western MNCs, recreational activities are attractive	2.95	3.05	2.90	2.93	2.97

Scores in the table are the means of answers on 5-point Likert-scales (5 = exactly correct, 4 = correct, if anything, 3 = a toss-up, 2 = incorrect, if anything, 1 = entirely incorrect).

Appendix D. Factor analysis of evaluation of their *Nikkeijin* employees: survey of the Japanese affiliates in Brazil

	Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4	Factor 5	Factor 6	Factor 7
Compared to the western MNCs, training programmes for Brazilian managers are insufficient	0.741	−0.141	−0.023	0.013	0.064	0.023	0.193
Compared to the western MNCs, global career opportunities are small	0.642	−0.169	0.108	0.136	0.255	−0.067	−0.097
Compared to the western MNCs, sharing of management philosophy is insufficient	0.634	−0.126	0.191	−0.134	0.034	−0.023	0.258
Compared to the western MNCs, difference in working conditions between (Japanese) expatriates and Brazilian managers is large	0.573	−0.030	0.176	0.112	0.084	−0.016	−0.053
Compared to the western MNCs, salary levels of Brazilian managers are low	0.423	0.064	0.037	0.392	0.072	0.012	0.034
Compared to the western MNCs, employment is stable (less fears of lay-offs)	−0.185	0.652	−0.033	0.117	−0.057	0.094	−0.129
Compared to the western MNCs, relations with trade unions are good	0.034	0.624	0.058	−0.037	0.024	0.033	0.075
Compared to the western MNCs, recreational activities are attractive	−0.068	0.510	−0.095	0.008	0.023	0.115	−0.054
Compared to the western MNCs, they are good at absorbing the ideas of non-management employees	−0.220	0.414	−0.085	−0.118	−0.011	0.274	0.339
Compared to the western MNCs, in-company communication is not smooth	0.211	−0.066	0.598	0.047	0.130	−0.208	−0.072
Compared to the western MNCs, employees often work overtime or on a day off and working hours are long	0.178	0.005	0.545	−0.077	−0.098	0.240	0.110
Compared to the western MNCs, in-company rules are detailed and strict	−0.106	0.046	0.533	0.068	0.146	0.070	0.208
Compared to the western MNCs, in-company human relations are complicated and atmosphere is stiff	0.267	−0.304	0.514	0.231	0.086	−0.002	−0.100

Appendix D (Continued)

	Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4	Factor 5	Factor 6	Factor 7
Compared to the western MNCs, HRM systems are seniority-based	0.056	0.022	0.068	0.779	−0.017	−0.029	0.058
Compared to the western MNCs, responsibilities and authorities are not clear	0.130	0.047	0.143	−0.082	0.738	0.019	0.049
Compared to the western MNCs, documentation or standardization of work procedures is insufficient	0.368	−0.004	−0.011	0.155	0.418	0.060	−0.063
Compared to the western MNCs, delegation of authority to Brazilian managers is insufficient	0.298	−0.266	0.137	0.286	0.336	0.007	0.116
Compared to the western MNCs, difference between white-collar and blue-collar employees is small	−0.011	0.129	0.075	−0.109	0.138	0.578	−0.123
Compared to the western MNCs, chances of promotion without high academic background are probable	0.005	0.100	−0.002	0.074	−0.054	0.486	0.113
Compared to the western MNCs, progress of localization of management executive positions is slow	0.291	−0.088	0.204	0.158	0.039	0.008	0.572
Eigenvalue	4.172	2.086	1.581	1.381	1.276	1.160	1.054
Contribution	20.86%	10.43%	7.91%	6.91%	6.38%	5.80%	5.27%
Cronbach's alpha	0.754	0.642	0.639	–	0.564	0.421	–

Factors with eigenvalue of 1.00 or higher were used. Rotation = varimax.

References

- Al Ariss, A., Cascio, W. F., & Paauwe, J. (2014). Talent management: Current theories and future research directions. *Journal of World Business*, 49, 173–179.
- Andresen, M., Al Ariss, A., Walther, M., & Wolff, K. (2012). *Self-initiated expatriation: Individual, organizational, and national perspectives*. New York: Routledge.
- Appiah, K. A. (1998). Cosmopolitan patriots. In P. Cheah & B. Robbins (Eds.), *Cosmopolitics: Thinking and feeling beyond the nation* (pp. 91–114). Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Arora, A., Jaju, A., Kefalas, A. G., & Perenich, T. (2004). An exploratory analysis of global managerial mindsets: A case of U.S. textile and apparel industry. *Journal of International Management*, 10, 393–411.
- Bartlett, C. A., & Ghoshal, S. (1998). *Managing across borders: The transnational solution* (2nd ed.). Boston: Harvard Business School Press.
- Bartlett, C. A., & Yoshihira, H. (1988). New challenges for Japanese multinationals: Is organization adaptation their Achilles heel? *Human Resource Management*, 27, 19–43.
- Benet-Martinez, V., & Haritatos, J. (2005). Bicultural identity integration (BII): Components and psychological antecedents. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 73, 1015–1050.
- Bochner, S. (1981). *The mediating person: Bridges between cultures*. New Castle, DE: GK Hall & Co.
- Brannen, M. Y., & Thomas, D. C. (2010). Bicultural individuals in organizations: Implications and opportunity. *International Journal of Cross-Cultural Management*, 10, 5–16.
- Brewster, C., Sparrow, P., Vernon, G., & Houldsworth, E. (2011). *International human resource management*. London: CIPD.
- Butler, C. L., Zander, L., Mockaitis, A. I., & Sutton, C. (2012). The global leader as boundary spanner, bridge maker and blender. *Industrial Organizational Psychologist: Perspectives on Science and Practice*, 5, 240–243.
- Cerdin, J.-L., & Brewster, C. (2014). Talent management and expatriation: Bridging two streams of research and practice. *Journal of World Business*, 49, 245–252.
- Collings, D. (2014). Integrating global mobility and global talent management: Exploring the challenges and strategic opportunities. *Journal of World Business*, 49, 253–261.
- Collings, D. G., Scullion, H., & Morley, M. (2007). Changing patterns of global staffing in the multinational enterprise: Challenges to the conventional expatriate assignment and emerging alternatives. *Journal of World Business*, 42, 198–213.
- Dore, R. (1973). *British factory, Japanese factory: The origins of national diversity in industrial relations*. Los Angeles: University of California Press.
- Doz, Y. L., Santos, J., & Williamson, P. (2001). *From global to metanational: How companies win in the knowledge economy*. Boston: Harvard Business School Press.
- Edström, A., & Galbraith, J. R. (1977). Transfer of managers as a coordination and control strategy in multinational organizations. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 22, 248–263.
- Ehnert, I., & Brewster, C. (2008). An integrative framework for expatriate preparation and training. In C. Brewster, P. Sparrow, & M. Dickmann (Eds.), *International human resource management: Contemporary issues in Europe* (2nd ed., pp. 107–125). London: Routledge.
- Evans, P., Pucik, V., & Barsoux, J.-L. (2002). *Global challenge: International human resource management*. New York: McGraw-Hill.
- Fernandez, J. P., & Barr, M. (1993). *The diversity advantage: How American business can out-perform Japanese and European companies on the global marketplace*. New York: Lexington Books.
- Fitzsimmons, S. R., Miska, C., & Stahl, G. (2011). Multicultural employees: Global business' untapped resource. *Organizational Dynamics*, 40, 199–206.
- Friedman, R., & Liu, W. (2009). Biculturalism in management: Leveraging the benefits of intrapersonal diversity. In R. Wyer, C. Y. Chiu, & Y. Y. Hong (Eds.), *Understanding culture: Theory, research, and application* (pp. 343–360). Hove, East Sussex: Psychology Press.
- Friedman, T. L. (2007). *The world is flat: The globalized world in the twenty-first century*. London: Penguin Books.
- Fryxell, G. E., Butler, J., & Choi, A. (2004). Successful localization programs in China: An important element in strategy implementation. *Journal of World Business*, 39, 268–282.
- Fujino, T. (1995). *Hikaku-keiron*. [The theory of comparative management]. Tokyo: Chikura Shobou.
- Furusawa, M. (2008). *Global jintekishigen kanriron*. [The theory of global human resource management]. Tokyo: Hakutou Shobou.
- Furusawa, M. (2013). *Nikkeijin katsuyou senryakuron*. [The theory of utilization of the Nikkeijin]. Tokyo: Hakutou Shobou.
- Hall, E. T. (1976). *Beyond culture*. Garden City, NY: Doubleday and Company.
- Hannerz, U. (1990). Cosmopolitans and locals in world culture. In M. Featherstone (Ed.), *Global culture: Nationalism, globalization and modernity* (pp. 237–251). London: Sage.
- Harzing, A.-W.K. (1999). MNE staffing policies for the managing director position in foreign subsidiaries: The results of an innovative research method. In C. Brewster & H. Harris (Eds.), *International HRM: Contemporary issues in Europe* (pp. 67–88). London: Routledge.
- Harzing, A.-W.K. (2001). Who's in charge? An empirical study of executive staffing practices in foreign subsidiaries. *Human Resource Management*, 40, 139–158.
- Hayashi, K. (1985). *Ibunka interface kanri*. [Cross cultural interface management]. Tokyo: Yuuhikaku.
- Hayashi, K. (1994). *Ibunka interface keiei*. [Cross cultural interface corporate management]. Tokyo: Nihonkeizaishinbunshuppansha.
- Hong, H.-J. (2010). Bi-cultural competence and its impact on team performance. *International Journal of Cross-Cultural Management*, 10, 93–120.
- Hong, Y. Y., Morris, M., Chiu, C. Y., & Benet-Martinez, V. (2000). Multicultural minds: A dynamic constructivist approach to culture and cognition. *American Psychologist*, 55, 709–720.
- Huselid, M. A., & Becker, B. E. (2000). Comment on measurement error in research on human resources and firm performance: How much error is there and how does it influence effect size estimates? *Personnel Psychology*, 53, 835–854.
- Iles, P., Chuai, X., & Preece, D. (2010). Talent management and HRM in multinational companies in Beijing: Definitions, differences and drivers. *Journal of World Business*, 45, 179–189.
- Jackson, S. E., Schuler, R. S., & Jiang, K. (2014). An aspirational framework for strategic human resource management. *Academy of Management Annals*, 8, 1–56.
- Japan-Brazil Chamber of Commerce. (2004). *Nihon kara no shinshutsu kaikin kigyō no genchika ni kansuru dai-sankai chousa kekka*. [Report on the 3rd survey on the localization of management in Japanese-affiliated companies in Brazil]. São Paulo: Japan-Brazil Chamber of Commerce.
- Japan Institute of Labour. (1988). *Brazil no roudou jijyou: Nikkeikigyō to roudou shakai no jittai*. [The labour situations in Brazil: The Japanese-affiliated companies and the reality of labour and society]. Tokyo: Japan Institute of Labour.
- Japan Overseas Enterprises Association. (2008). *Kaigaihakensha handbook: Brazil-hen*. [Handbook for expatriates to Brazil]. Tokyo: Japan Overseas Enterprises Association.
- Joyce, W. F., & Slocum, J. W. (2012). Top management talent, strategic capabilities, and firm performance. *Organizational Dynamics*, 41, 183–193.

- Kajita, T., Tanno, K., & Higuchi, N. (2005). *Kao no mienai teijuuka*. [Invisible residents]. Nagoya: Nagoyadaigaku Shuppankai.
- Kepes, S., Delery, J., & Gupta, N. (2009). Contingencies in the effects of pay range on organizational effectiveness. *Personnel Psychology*, 62: 497–531.
- Khatri, N., Fern, C. T., & Budhwar, P. (2001). Explaining employee turnover in an Asian context. *Human Resource Management Journal*, 11: 54–74.
- Kim, S., Froese, F. J., & Cox, A. (2012). Applicant attraction to foreign companies: The case of Japanese companies in Vietnam. *Asia Pacific Journal of Human Resources*, 50: 439–458.
- Koike, Y. (2008). Brazil no nikkeikigyou to roushikankei [Japanese-affiliated corporations in Brazil and their labour-management relations]. *Gekkan Global Keiei*, 316: 4–9.
- LaFromboise, T., Coleman, H. L. K., & Gerton, J. (1993). Psychological impact of biculturalism: Evidence and theory. *Psychological Bulletin*, 114: 395–412.
- Levy, O., Beechler, S., Taylor, S., & Boyacigiller, N. A. (2007). What we talk about when we talk about 'global mindset': Managerial cognition in multinational corporations. *Journal of International Business Studies*, 38: 231–258.
- Lewis, R. E., & Heckman, R. J. (2006). Talent management: A critical review. *Human Resource Management Review*, 16: 139–154.
- Lone, S. (2001). *The Japanese community in Brazil, 1908–1940: Between samurai and carnival*. Basingstoke: Palgrave.
- Lücke, G., & Roth, K. (2008). *An embeddedness view of biculturalism*. South Carolina CIBER Working Paper Series.
- Mayrhofer, W., & Brewster, C. (1996). In praise of ethnocentricity: Expatriate policies in European multinationals. *International Executive*, 38: 749–778.
- Mendenhall, M. E., Dunbar, E., & Oddou, G. R. (1987). Expatriate selection, training and career-pathing: A review and critique. *Human Resource Management*, 26: 331–345.
- Miyao, S. (2002). *Borderless ni naru Nikkeijin*. [Borderless Nikkeijin]. São Paulo: Center for Japanese-Brazilian Studies.
- Nakasumi, T. (1998). *Brazil Nikkei shakai-kou*. [A study of the Japanese community in Brazil]. Akita: Mumyosha.
- Ninomiya, M. (2006). Nippon ni okeru braziljinshuuroushamondai to sono shijo no kyoiiku ni tsuite [The Dekasegi phenomenon and the education of Japanese Brazilian children in Japanese schools]. In L. R. Hirabayashi, A. Kikumura-Yano, & J. A. Hirabayashi (Eds.), *Nikkeijin to globalization: Hokubei, nanbei, nippon* (pp. 373–393). New worlds, new lives: Globalization and people of Japanese descent in the Americas and from Latin America in Japan]. Tokyo: Jimbun Shoin Printed.
- Ninomiya, M. (2008). Brazil roudoushouhou no jittai to roudouhousei [The reality of labour lawsuits and labour law in Brazil]. *Gekkan Global Keiei*, 316: 10–15.
- Oakamoto, K., & Teo, S. T. T. (2012). Role stress reduction and cultural mediators in overseas Japanese companies. *International Journal of Human Resource Management*, 23(17): 3522–3635.
- Osland, J., Bird, A., Mendenhall, M. E., & Osaland, A. (2006). Developing global leadership capabilities and global mindsets: A review. In G. Stahl & I. Björkman (Eds.), *Handbook of research in international human resource management* (pp. 197–222). Cheltenham: Edward Elgar.
- Puck, J. F., Kittler, M. G., & Wright, C. (2008). Does it really work? Reassessing the impact of pre-departure cross-cultural training on expatriate adjustment. *International Journal of Human Resource Management*, 19: 2182–2197.
- Rhinesmith, S. H. (1995). Open door to a global mind-set. *Training and Development*, 49: 35–43.
- Schein, E. H. (1978). *Career dynamics: Matching individual and organizational needs*. Reading, MS: Addison-Wesley.
- Scullion, H., & Collings, D. G. (2006). *Global staffing*. London: Routledge.
- Selmer, J. (2004). Expatriates' hesitation and the localization of western business operations in China. *International Journal of Human Resource Management*, 15: 1094–1107.
- Shaw, J. D., Duffy, M. K., Johnson, J. L., & Lockhart, D. E. (2005). Turnover, social capital losses, and performance. *Academy of Management Journal*, 48: 594–606.
- Shen, Y., & Hall, D. T. (2009). When expatriates explore other options: Retaining talent through greater job embeddedness and repatriation adjustment. *Human Resource Management*, 48: 793–816.
- Sparrow, P., Brewster, C., & Harris, H. (2004). *Globalizing human resource management*. London: Routledge.
- Stahl, G. K., Björkman, I., Farndale, E., Morris, S. S., Paaauwe, J., Stiles, P., et al. (2012). Six principles of effective global talent management. *MIT Sloan Management Review*, 53: 25–42.
- Suzuki, T. (2008). *Brazil: Kyodaikeizai no shinjitsu*. [Brazil: The truth of the huge economy]. Tokyo: Nihonkeizaishinbunshuppansha.
- Suzuki, T. (2010). *2020-nen no Brazil keizai*. [Brazilian economy in 2020]. Tokyo: Nihonkeizaishinbunshuppansha.
- Tanaka, M. (1998). *Chikyuu no uragawa kara mita nihon: Brazil no nihonkigyou o tooshite kangaru*. [Japan watched from the opposite side of the earth: From the viewpoint of Japanese-affiliates in Brazil]. Tokyo: Nihon Tosho Kankoukai.
- Tarique, I., & Caligiuri, P. M. (2009). The role of cross-cultural absorptive capacity in the effectiveness of in-country cross-cultural training. *International Journal of Training and Development*, 13: 148–164.
- Tarique, I., & Schuler, R. S. (2010). Global talent management: Literature review, integrative framework, and suggestions for further research. *Journal of World Business*, 45: 122–133.
- Tian, X., Harvey, M., & Slocum, J. W. (2014). The retention of Chinese managers: The Chinese puzzle box. *Organizational Dynamics*, 43: 44–52.
- Toh, S. M., & DeNisi, A. S. (2005). A local perspective to expatriate success. *Academy of Management Executive*, 19: 132–146.
- Tomlinson, J. (1999). *Globalization and culture*. Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Tung, R. L. (1988). Career issues in international assignments. *Academy of Management Executives*, 2: 241–244.
- Tung, R. L., & Lazarova, M. B. (2006). Brain drain versus brain gain: An exploratory study of ex-host country nationals in Central and East Europe. *International Journal of Human Resource Management*, 17: 1853–1872.
- Tymon, W. G., Stumpf, S. A., & Doh, J. P. (2010). Exploring talent management in India: The neglected role of intrinsic rewards. *Journal of World Business*, 45: 109–121.
- Ueda, M. (2010). *Nikkei shakai no mirai* [The future of the Japanese community in Brazil]. In K. Harada (Ed.), *Brazil no Nikkeijin* (pp. 339–356). Nikkeijin in Brazil]. São Paulo: Toppan Press Insatsu Shuppangaisha.
- Vaiman, V., & Haslberger, H. (2012). *Talent management of self-initiated expatriates: A neglected source of global talent*. London: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Vertovec, S., & Rogers, A. (1998). Introduction. In S. Vertovec & A. Rogers (Eds.), *Muslim European youth: Reproducing religion, ethnicity, culture* (pp. 1–33). Aldershot: Ashgate.
- White, M., & Trevor, M. (1985). *Under Japanese management: The experience of British workers*. London: Heinemann Educational Books.
- Yasumuro, K., & Kansai Productivity Center, (1997). *Genba-ism no kaigaikeiei*. [Overseas management by genba-ism]. Tokyo: Hakutou Shobou.
- Yoshino, M. Y. (1976). *Japan's multinational enterprises*. Cambridge, MS: Harvard University Press.